Chapter 1 — How the Web Works

This chapter follows one page from a server's disk to your screen: the URL that names it, the DNS lookup that finds the server, the HTTP conversation that delivers it, and the browser pipeline that turns text into pixels. It ends with a first real page, a sensible folder layout, and the networking fundamentals interviewers ask about.

In this chapter: 1.1 The web in one picture · 1.2 URLs · 1.3 DNS · 1.4 Connections: TCP, TLS, HTTP versions · 1.5 HTTP basics · 1.6 "What happens when you type a URL?" · 1.7 The rendering pipeline · 1.8 Browser DevTools · 1.9 Your first page and file structure · 1.10 Networking fundamentals.

Every example lives in `code/`. The `.mjs` files (ES-module JavaScript) run with **Node.js 24** — a program that runs JavaScript outside the browser (`node code/01_url_parts.mjs`). Scripts that need a DOM (§1.7) use **jsdom**, a library that imitates a browser document in Node; two drive real **headless Chrome** (Chrome with no window, controlled by a script). Outputs are copied from real runs.

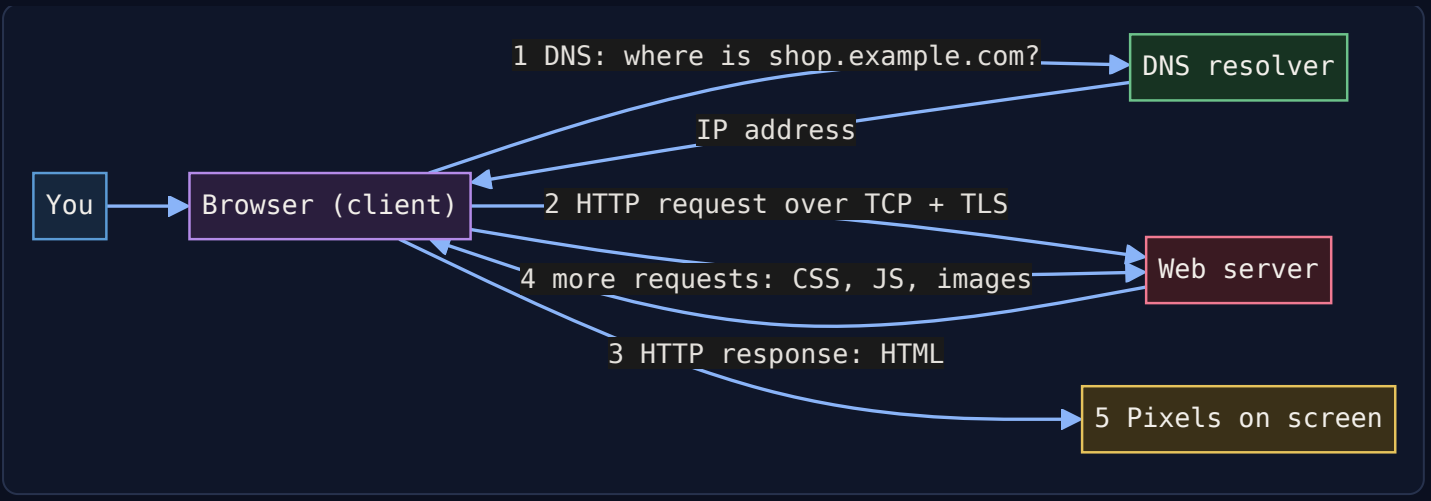
1.1 The web in one picture

What it is

The **Internet** is the global network of connected computers plus the low-level **protocols** (agreed rules for how programs talk) that move data between them: **IP** (Internet Protocol) gives every machine an address and moves small chunks called **packets**; TCP and UDP (§1.4, §1.10) carry data between programs. The **World Wide Web** is one service on top: documents and apps named by **URLs**, fetched with **HTTP**, written in **HTML** — the three ideas from Tim Berners-Lee's 1989 CERN proposal (first site live 1991). Email, games and SSH (Secure Shell, remote command-line login) use the Internet but are not "the web".

The roles

Term	Meaning	Example
Client	The program that asks for something	Your browser, a phone app, `curl` (command-line download tool)
Server	A program (and machine) that answers requests	nginx (a popular web server), a Node.js app, a CDN edge node (§1.3)
User agent	The spec's name for the program acting for the user — usually the browser	Chrome, Firefox, Safari, a screen reader (software that reads the page aloud) + browser
Resource	Anything a URL points at	An HTML page, an image, a JSON response
Browser engine	The part that parses (reads and understands) and draws pages	Blink (Chrome, Edge, Opera), Gecko (Firefox), WebKit (Safari)
JavaScript engine	The part that runs JS	V8 (Chrome, Node.js), SpiderMonkey (Firefox), JavaScriptCore (Safari)



The three languages of the front end

Language	Its job	If it were a house
HTML (HyperText Markup Language)	Structure and meaning: heading, list, button	Walls, rooms, doors
CSS (Cascading Style Sheets)	Presentation: colour, spacing, layout, animation	Paint, furniture, lighting
JavaScript	Behaviour: react to clicks, fetch data, change the page	Electricity and plumbing

Screen readers, search engines and "reader mode" use the HTML alone, so a well-structured page stays usable if CSS fails or JS is off. Building that way — working HTML first, CSS and JS layered on top — is **progressive enhancement**.

Who defines the rules

Technology	Standards body
HTML + DOM	**WHATWG** (Web Hypertext Application Technology Working Group) — a "living standard" edited continuously at html.spec.whatwg.org; no "HTML6", "HTML5" is a historical label
CSS	**W3C** CSS Working Group, as separate modules (Flexbox, Grid, Colour…)
HTTP	**IETF**, in RFCs (Requests for Comments)
JavaScript	**ECMAScript**, by Ecma TC39 (JavaScript book)
Accessibility (usability for people with disabilities)	WCAG (Web Content Accessibility Guidelines), W3C Web Accessibility Initiative (Chapter 3)

Baseline (a label on MDN — Mozilla's web reference — and web.dev) marks features that work in all core browsers (Chrome, Edge, Firefox, Safari, desktop and mobile): *newly available* when the last one ships it, *widely available* 30 months later. This book uses it whenever support matters.

1.2 URLs — the address of everything

What it is

A **URL** (Uniform Resource Locator) says *how* to reach a resource and *where* it is. Every link, image, stylesheet and API call is a URL.

How it works — the parts

`https://user@shop.example.com:8443/books/html.html?lang=en&page=2#reviews`

Part	In the example	Meaning
Scheme	`https:`	Protocol (`http` , `https` , `mailto` , `tel` , `file` , `data` …)
Userinfo	`user@`	Rare, legacy; never put passwords here
Host	`shop.example.com`	Domain name (human-readable server name) or IP address
Port	`:8443`	Which "door" on the server; omitted = scheme default (80 http, 443 https)
Path	`/books/html.html`	Which resource on that server
Query	`?lang=en&page=2`	`name=value` parameters separated by `&`
Fragment	`#reviews`	A spot *inside* the page (usually an element `id`); never sent to the server

The **origin** is scheme + host + port (`https://shop.example.com:8443`). Browsers isolate pages by origin — the **same-origin policy**: a script from one origin may not read another's data. It returns with cookies (small data a site stores in the browser), `fetch` (JS's HTTP function) and CORS (Cross-Origin Resource Sharing: how a server lets other origins read its responses) in the JavaScript book.

Node implements the same WHATWG URL Standard as browsers:

```
// code/01_url_parts.mjs
const u = new URL('https://user@shop.example.com:8443/books/html.html?lang=en&page=2#reviews');
for (const k of ['href', 'protocol', 'username', 'hostname', 'port', 'origin', 'pathname', 'search', 'hash'])
  console.log(k.padEnd(9), u[k]);
console.log('lang    =', u.searchParams.get('lang'), '| page =', u.searchParams.get('page'));

// Relative URLs are resolved against the page's own URL (the "base").
const base = 'https://shop.example.com/books/html.html';
for (const rel of ['css.html', './img/cover.png', '../about.html', '/cart', '?page=3', '#top',
'//cdn.example.net/a.js'])
  console.log(rel.padEnd(24), '->', new URL(rel, base).href);

// Special characters are percent-encoded; default ports disappear.
console.log(new URL('https://example.com:443/my file.html?q=café').href);
```

Output:

```
href      https://user@shop.example.com:8443/books/html.html?lang=en&page=2#reviews
protocol  https:
username  user
hostname  shop.example.com
port      8443
origin    https://shop.example.com:8443
pathname  /books/html.html
search    ?lang=en&page=2
hash      #reviews
lang    = en | page = 2
css.html                -> https://shop.example.com/books/css.html
./img/cover.png         -> https://shop.example.com/books/img/cover.png
../about.html           -> https://shop.example.com/about.html
/cart                   -> https://shop.example.com/cart
?page=3                 -> https://shop.example.com/books/html.html?page=3
#top                    -> https://shop.example.com/books/html.html#top
//cdn.example.net/a.js   -> https://cdn.example.net/a.js
https://example.com/my%20file.html?q=caf%C3%A9
```

Absolute vs relative URLs

Kind	Looks like	Resolves to	Use for
Absolute	`https://other.site/page`	Exactly that	Other sites
Document-relative	`css.html`, `./img/a.png`, `../about.html`	The current page's folder (`.` = this folder, `..` = parent)	Files next to the page
Root-relative	`/cart`	Same origin, from the site root	Links inside a site served from a domain root
Scheme-relative	`//cdn.example.net/a.js`	Same scheme as the page	Legacy; write `https://` today
Query / fragment only	`?page=3`, `#top`	Same page, new query or jump target	Pagination, in-page links

Relative links make a site movable between your laptop, staging (a private test copy) and production (the live site).

Common mistakes

- Backslashes (`img\cat.png`) — URLs always use `/`.
- Root-relative links (`/css/style.css`) when opening files from disk: `/` becomes the root of your *disk*. Use a local server (§1.9) or document-relative paths.
- Secrets or personal data in the query string — URLs end up in logs, history and `Referer` headers (which tell a server the page the visitor came from).
- Forgetting the fragment is client-side only: the server never sees `#reviews`, and changing only the fragment makes no new request.

Self-check

1. Origin of `http://example.com/a/b?c#d`? → `http://example.com` (port 80 implied).
2. On `https://site.com/docs/intro/start.html`, where does `../api.html` go? → `https://site.com/docs/api.html`.

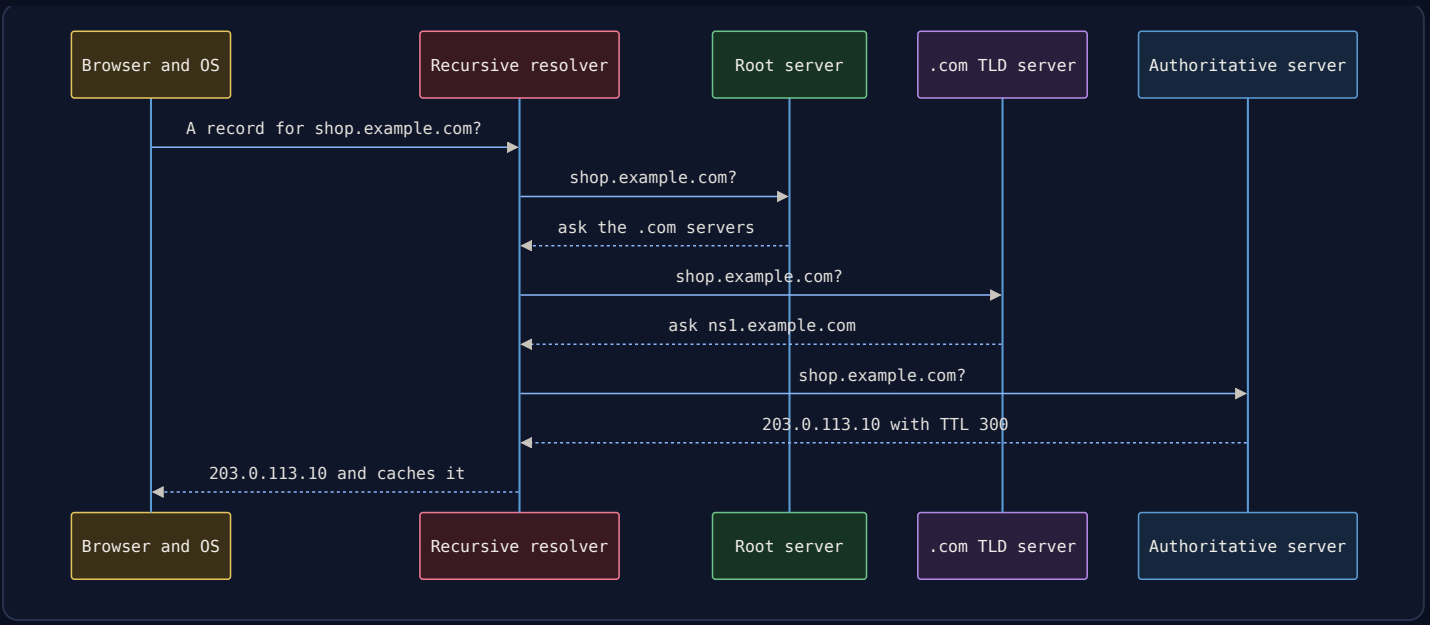
1.3 DNS — turning names into addresses

What it is

Computers route by **IP address** — e.g. `203.0.113.10` (IPv4) or `2001:db8::10` (IPv6, §1.10), both documentation ranges. The **Domain Name System (DNS)** is the Internet's distributed phone book: no single server holds it all (System Design Fundamentals).

How it works

1. The browser checks its **cache** (stored recent answers), then the OS checks its cache and the `hosts` file (`/etc/hosts` on macOS/Linux).
2. On a miss, the OS asks a **recursive resolver** — your ISP's (Internet service provider), your company's, or a public one such as 1.1.1.1 or 8.8.8.8.
3. The resolver walks the name from the right: a **root server** names the `.com` servers; the **TLD (top-level domain) server** names the authoritative server for `example.com`; the **authoritative name server** returns the record.
4. Each answer carries a **TTL** (time to live, seconds); resolver, OS and browser cache it that long, so most lookups take milliseconds.



Record types you will meet

Record	Maps	Example use
`A`	name → IPv4 address	`shop.example.com → 203.0.113.10`
`AAAA`	name → IPv6 address	same, for IPv6
`CNAME`	name → another name (alias)	`www.example.com → example.netlify.app`
`MX`	domain → mail servers	where `@example.com` email goes
`TXT`	arbitrary text	ownership checks, SPF/DKIM (email anti-spoofing)
`NS`	domain → its authoritative name servers	delegation (handing part of the name tree to other servers)

Classic DNS uses unencrypted UDP port 53; **DNS over HTTPS (DoH)** and **DNS over TLS (DoT)** encrypt lookups; most browsers can use DoH.

Real-world examples

- "Pointing a domain" at GitHub Pages, Netlify or Vercel = adding an `A` or `CNAME` record at your registrar (where you bought the name).
- A **CDN** (content delivery network: Cloudflare, Akamai) answers DNS with the IP of the nearest **edge server** (one of many copy servers close to users), so the same name reaches different machines per country (CDN notes).
- DNS changes "take time to propagate" because old answers stay cached until their TTL expires — so lower the TTL a day before moving servers.

1.4 Connections: TCP, TLS and the HTTP versions

What it is

With an IP address, the browser needs a reliable, private channel:

- **TCP** (Transmission Control Protocol): an ordered, reliable byte stream. Opening it costs one **round trip** (message out, reply back) — the *three-way handshake* SYN, SYN-ACK, ACK.
- **TLS** (Transport Layer Security): encrypts the stream and proves the server's identity with a **certificate** (a digital ID binding a domain to a public key) signed by a certificate authority (e.g. Let's Encrypt, which verifies you control the domain). TLS 1.3 (2018) adds one round trip for a new connection. `https://` = HTTP inside TLS.

- **HTTP**: the request/response language spoken inside.

Why HTTPS matters

Three guarantees: **confidentiality** (others on the Wi-Fi cannot read it), **integrity** (nobody injects ads or malware in transit), **authentication** (it really is `bank.com`). Browsers flag plain HTTP "Not secure"; service workers (background scripts that intercept requests, enabling offline use), geolocation, camera and clipboard require a **secure context** (HTTPS or `localhost`); Let's Encrypt made certificates free.

HTTP versions compared

Version	Year (current RFC)	Transport	Key idea	Practical effect
HTTP/1.1	1997 (RFC 9112, 2022)	TCP	Text messages, persistent connections	One request at a time per connection; browsers open ~6 per host
HTTP/2	2015 (RFC 9113, 2022)	TCP	Binary framing, **multiplexing** many requests on one connection, header compression	Many small files are cheap; one lost packet still stalls every stream (TCP **head-of-line blocking**)
HTTP/3	2022 (RFC 9114)	**QUIC** over UDP	Independent streams; TLS 1.3 built in	Faster set-up, better on lossy mobile networks, survives network changes

All versions share the same *semantics* — methods, status codes, headers (RFC 9110). Server and browser negotiate the version; your HTML is unchanged.

1.5 HTTP basics — requests and responses

What it is

HTTP (HyperText Transfer Protocol): one request, exactly one response. It is **stateless** — each request stands alone, so anything remembered between requests (login, cart) travels in cookies, tokens (signed strings proving identity) or URLs.

How it works — anatomy

Request: `method path version` line, headers (`Name: value`), blank line, optional body. **Response:** `version status reason` line, headers, blank line, body.

The script talks to a tiny local server over a raw TCP **socket** (one end of a network connection) to show the exact bytes; HTTP/2 and /3 carry the same information in binary frames.

```
// code/02_http_exchange.mjs (key parts)
function send(res, status, headers, body = '') {
  res.sendDate = false;                                  // no Date header -> identical output on every run
  res.writeHead(status, { ...headers, 'Content-Length': Buffer.byteLength(body) });
  res.end(body);
}
const server = http.createServer((req, res) => {
  if (req.url === '/') send(res, 200, { 'Content-Type': 'text/html; charset=utf-8', 'Cache-Control': 'max-age=60'
},
                            '<!DOCTYPE html><title>Hi</title><h1>Hello</h1>');
  else if (req.url === '/old') send(res, 301, { Location: '/' });
  else send(res, 404, { 'Content-Type': 'text/plain' }, 'Not found');
});
// ... raw(path) opens a socket and writes:
//   `GET ${path} HTTP/1.1\r\nHost: localhost\r\nAccept: text/html\r\nConnection: close\r\n\r\n`
await raw('/'); await raw('/old'); await raw('/missing');
```

Output for `/` (abridged from the run):

```
>>> REQUEST
GET / HTTP/1.1
Host: localhost
Accept: text/html
Connection: close
<<< RESPONSE
HTTP/1.1 200 OK
Content-Type: text/html; charset=utf-8
Cache-Control: max-age=60
Content-Length: 46
Connection: close

<!DOCTYPE html><title>Hi</title><h1>Hello</h1>
```

`/old` returns `HTTP/1.1 301 Moved Permanently` with `Location: /` and `Content-Length: 0`; `/missing` returns `HTTP/1.1 404 Not Found` with `Content-Type: text/plain` and body `Not found`.

- `Host` is mandatory in HTTP/1.1 — one IP can serve many sites.
- `Content-Type: text/html; charset=utf-8` tells the browser the bytes are HTML and how to decode them; the browser trusts this header, not the `.html` extension.
- `301` + `Location` is a redirect: the browser immediately requests `/`.
- The fragment (`#...`) never appears in a request line.

Methods

Method	Purpose	Safe? (no side effects)	Idempotent? (repeat = same result)	Sent by plain HTML?
`GET`	Read a resource	Yes	Yes	Links, images, forms with `method="get"`
`HEAD`	Like GET, headers only	Yes	Yes	No
`POST`	Create / submit / trigger an action	No	No	Forms with `method="post"`
`PUT`	Replace a resource	No	Yes	No (use `fetch`)
`PATCH`	Partially update	No	Not necessarily	No
`DELETE`	Remove	No	Yes	No
`OPTIONS`	Ask what is allowed (CORS preflight — a permission check before the real request)	Yes	Yes	No

HTML can only send `GET` and `POST` (links and forms, Chapter 5); `fetch` can send any method.

Status codes

Class	Meaning	Codes you should know
1xx	Informational	`103 Early Hints`
2xx	Success	`200 OK`, `201 Created`, `204 No Content`
3xx	Redirection	`301 Moved Permanently`, `302 Found`, `304 Not Modified`, `307` / `308` (redirects that keep the method)
4xx	Client error	`400 Bad Request`, `401 Unauthorized` (not logged in — "who are you?"), `403 Forbidden` (logged in, not allowed), `404 Not Found`, `429 Too Many Requests`
5xx	Server error	`500 Internal Server Error`, `502 Bad Gateway`, `503 Service Unavailable`

Headers worth recognising

Header	Direction	What it does
`Host`	request	Which site on this server
`User-Agent`	request	Identifies the browser
`Accept`, `Accept-Language`, `Accept-Encoding`	request	Preferred formats, languages, compression (gzip, br, zstd)
`Cookie` / `Set-Cookie`	request / response	Small pieces of state: server sets, browser sends back
`Content-Type`, `Content-Length`, `Content-Encoding`	both	What the body is, how big, how compressed
`Location`	response	Where a redirect points
`Cache-Control`, `ETag`, `Last-Modified`	response	Caching rules and validators (version stamps for freshness checks)
`Content-Security-Policy`, `Strict-Transport-Security`	response	Security policies (which scripts may run; always use HTTPS)

Caching in one paragraph

`Cache-Control: max-age=60` lets the browser reuse a response for 60 s without asking. After that it *revalidates*: sends `If-None-Match: <etag>` and gets a tiny `304 Not Modified` if unchanged. Sites put a content hash (a fingerprint of the file's bytes) in asset names (`app.3f9a2c.css`) and cache them for a year, while HTML is cached briefly or revalidated every time. More in Chapter 14 and the caching module.

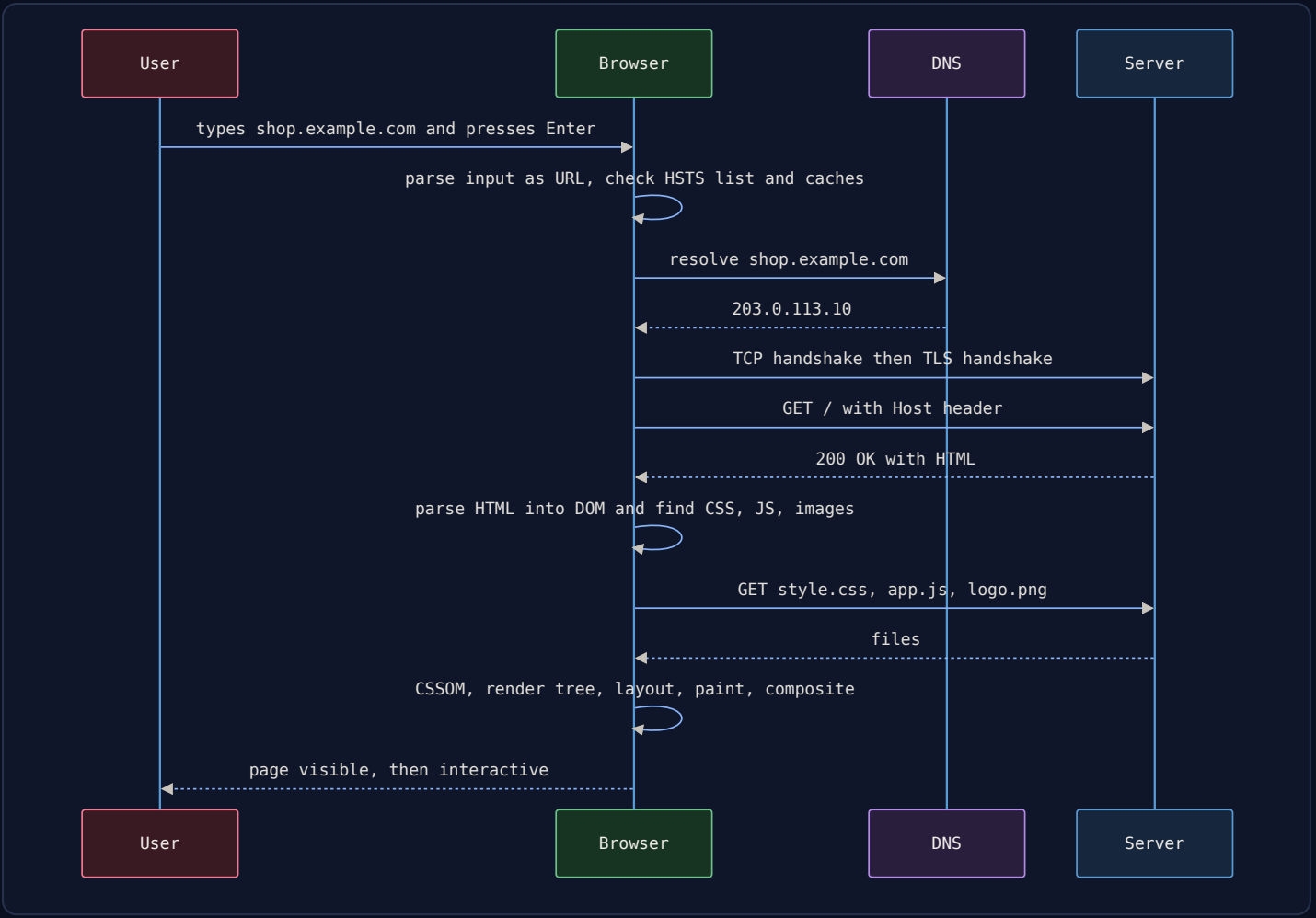
Common mistakes

- Changing data with a `GET` link (`<a href="/delete?id=5">`): crawlers (search robots) and link-prefetchers follow GETs.
- Serving HTML as `text/plain` — the browser shows the source.
- Confusing `401` with `403`.

Self-check

1. What does `304` mean and when do you see it? → Not Modified; when revalidating a cached copy that is still current.
2. Why is HTTP called stateless? → Every request is independent; state travels in cookies, tokens or URLs.

1.6 "What happens when you type a URL and press Enter?"



In the interview

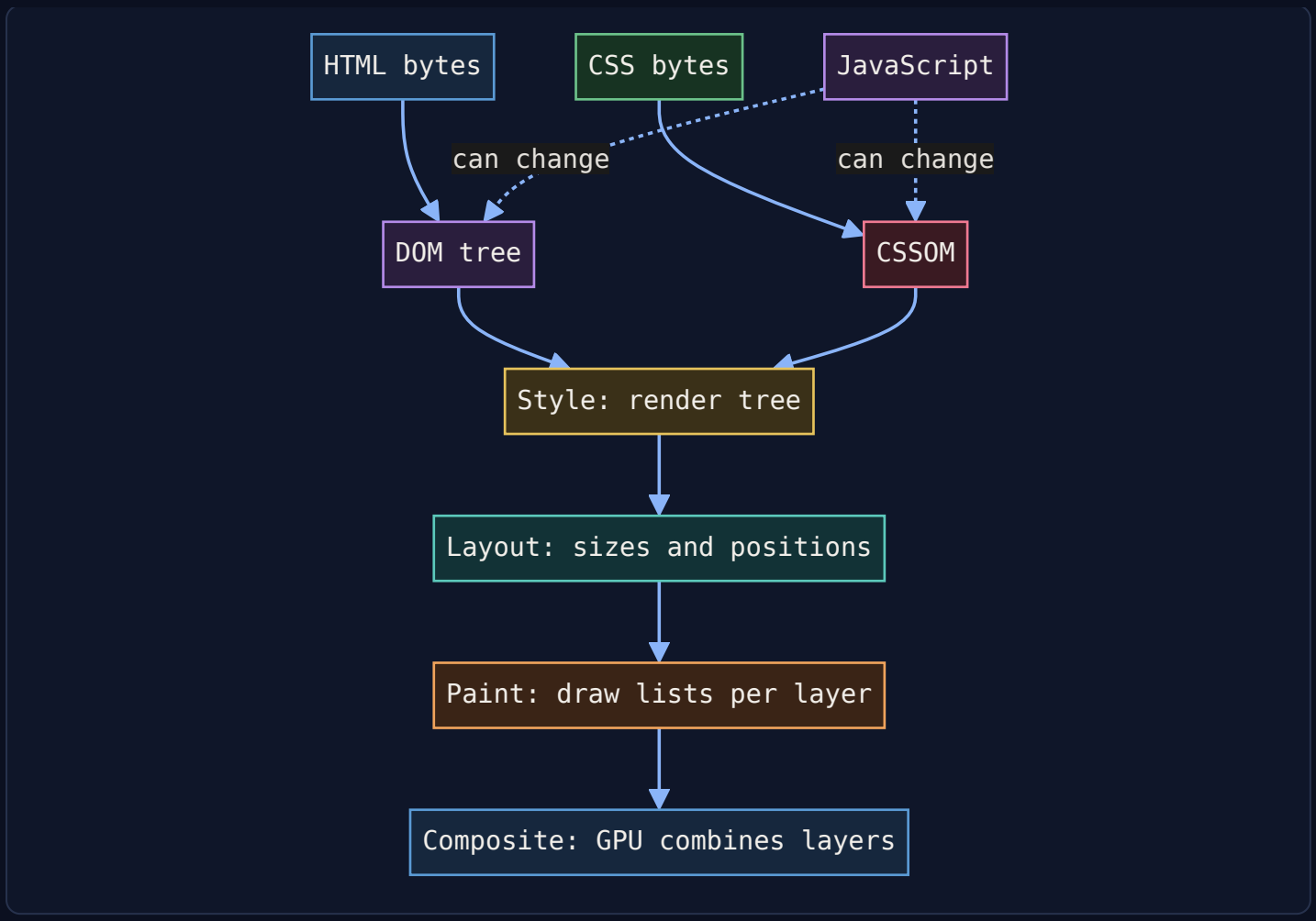
30-second answer: "The browser decides whether I typed a URL or a search, then resolves the host to an IP via its caches and DNS. It opens TCP and does a TLS handshake (or QUIC for HTTP/3), sends a GET with headers such as Host and cookies, and gets a response — maybe a redirect, ideally 200 with HTML. It parses the HTML into the DOM while fetching the CSS, JS and images it discovers, builds the CSSOM, combines them into a render tree, runs layout, paints and composites layers. Scripts then make the page interactive."

- *How could you make that faster?* → Fewer round trips (HTTP/2 or /3, a CDN near users, keep-alive — reusing one open connection — and `preconnect` to open connections early), smaller cacheable assets, no unnecessary render-blocking CSS/JS (Chapter 14).
- *What is HSTS?* → `Strict-Transport-Security` tells the browser to always use HTTPS for that site, so it upgrades `http://` itself without sending an insecure request.
- *Where can caching short-circuit this?* → DNS caches, the browser HTTP cache (no request at all under `max-age`), a service worker, a CDN edge cache.

1.7 The browser rendering pipeline

What it is

The **rendering pipeline** (the *critical rendering path* when talking about first view) is how an engine turns HTML and CSS bytes into pixels:



Step 1 — Parsing HTML into the DOM

Bytes are decoded to characters (using the `charset`), split into **tokens** (start tags, end tags, text, comments) and fed to a **tree builder**. The result is the **DOM** (Document Object Model): a tree of objects — *nodes* — that JavaScript can read and change. The WHATWG spec defines parsing exactly, including error recovery, so every modern browser builds the same tree from the same input. It never "fails".

> **Key term — tree:** each **node** has one parent and any number of children. `<html>` is the root; `<head>` and `<body>` are its children; a paragraph's text is a child of its `<p>`. "Sibling" = same parent; "descendant" = anywhere below.

jsdom implements the same algorithm, so we can watch it fix a sloppy document:

```
// code/03_parse_dom.mjs (key parts)
const body = `<title>Parsing demo</title>
<p>First paragraph
<p>Second <b>bold <i>both</b> italic?</i>
<table><tr><td>cell</td></tr></table>`;
const std = new JSDOM('<!DOCTYPE html>\n' + body).window.document;
console.log('Mode:', std.compatMode, '(CSS1Compat = standards mode)');
show(std.documentElement);                          // prints the tree, one node per line
console.log('\nSerialized back:\n' + std.body.innerHTML);
const quirks = new JSDOM(body).window.document;   // same markup, no doctype
console.log('Is the <table> inside the 2nd <p>?  standards:', !!std.querySelector('p > table'),
            '| quirks:', !!quirks.querySelector('p > table'));
```

Output:

```
Mode: CSS1Compat (CSS1Compat = standards mode)
Source had no <html>, <head>, <body>, </p> or <tbody> — the parser added them:

html
  head
    title
      "Parsing demo"
  body
    p
      "First paragraph"
    p
      "Second"
      b
        "bold"
        i
          "both"
      i
        "italic?"
    table
      tbody
        tr
          td
            "cell"

Serialized back:
<p>First paragraph
</p><p>Second <b>bold <i>both</i></b><i> italic?</i>
</p><table><tbody><tr><td>cell</td></tr></tbody></table>

Without <!DOCTYPE html> -> mode: BackCompat (BackCompat = quirks mode)
Is the <table> inside the 2nd <p>?  standards: false | quirks: true
```

What happened: `<html>` / `<head>` / `<body>` were created; a new `<p>` closed the previous one (paragraphs cannot nest); mis-nested `<b><i></b></i>` was repaired by reopening a fresh `<i>` after `</b>` (the "adoption agency algorithm"); a `<tbody>` was inserted (so `table > tr` never matches). Without `<!DOCTYPE html>` the page is in **quirks mode**, imitating 1990s browser bugs — here a table does *not* close the paragraph. Always use the doctype (Chapter 2) and validate (§2.10) rather than rely on recovery.

Scripts and parsing. A plain `<script src>` is *parser-blocking*: the parser stops, downloads and runs it (it might call `document.write`, an old function that inserts markup mid-parse), then continues.

Script tag	Downloads	Runs	Order kept?	Use for
`<script src>`	blocks parsing	immediately	yes	Rarely needed today
`<script src defer>`	in parallel	after parsing, before `DOMContentLoaded`	yes	Most page scripts
`<script src async>`	in parallel	as soon as downloaded (pauses parser briefly)	no	Independent scripts, e.g. analytics
`<script type="module">`	in parallel	deferred by default	yes	ES modules (files that `import` / `export`)

A **preload scanner** reads ahead in the raw HTML and starts downloading CSS, scripts and images early, even while the parser is blocked.

Step 2 — Parsing CSS into the CSSOM

CSS from `<link rel="stylesheet">`, `<style>` and `style=""` is parsed into the **CSSOM** (CSS Object Model): rules, their selectors (which elements a rule targets) and declarations (`property: value`). CSS is **render-blocking**: the browser won't paint until it has the stylesheets in `<head>`, to avoid a "flash of unstyled content" (FOUC). So stylesheets belong in the head and should be small.

Step 3 — Style and the render tree

The browser matches every element against the rules and computes a final value for every property (**computed style**; cascade and specificity in Chapter 6). Elements that produce boxes form the **render tree** (Chrome: *layout tree*). Left out: `display: none` elements and their contents, and never-rendered elements (`<head>` , `<script>` , `<meta>` , `<link>`). `visibility: hidden` and `opacity: 0` elements *stay* — invisible but occupying space.

`code/04_render_tree.mjs` styles five elements with `.hidden { display: none }` , `.ghost { visibility: hidden }` , `.faded { opacity: 0 }` and `p { color: #333 }` , prints the CSSOM, then reads `getComputedStyle()` per element:

Output:

```
CSSOM rules:
  .hidden { display: none; }
  .ghost { visibility: hidden; }
  .faded { opacity: 0; }
  p { color: rgb(51, 51, 51); }

Element           display  visibility  in render tree?  painted visibly?
<h1>               block    visible     true             true
<p>                block    visible     true             true
<p .hidden>        none     visible     false            false
<p .ghost>         block    hidden      true             false
<p .faded>         block    visible     true             false
<script>           none     visible     false            false
```

The CSSOM stores parsed values (`#333` → `rgb(51, 51, 51)`). In real Chrome (`code/render-tree.html`):

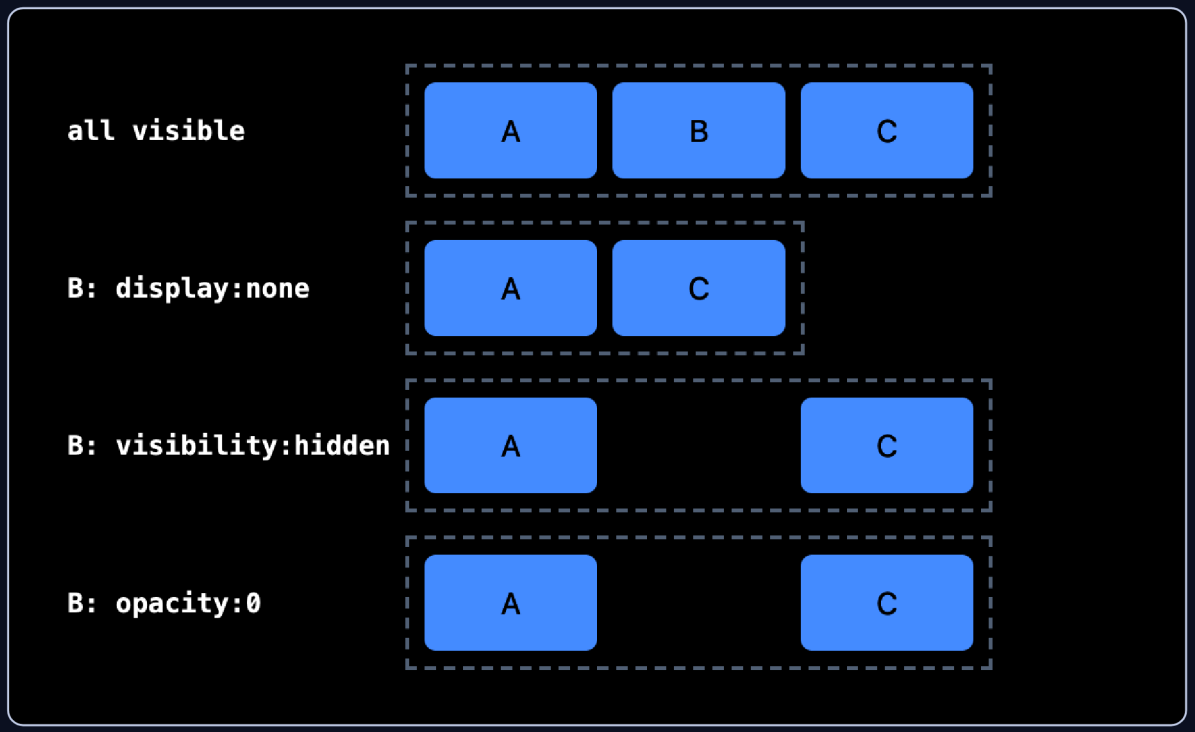


Figure 1.1 — `display: none` removes B's box entirely; `visibility: hidden` and `opacity: 0` keep its space.

Technique	Takes space?	Clickable?	Read by screen readers?
`display: none`	No	No	No
`visibility: hidden`	Yes	No	No
`opacity: 0`	Yes	**Yes**	**Yes**
`hidden` attribute	No (it applies `display: none`)	No	No

Step 4 — Layout

Layout (Firefox: *reflow*) computes each box's exact position and size in pixels, starting from the **viewport** width (the visible window area): percentages, `em`s, flex and grid become concrete numbers. Any later geometric change — width, font size, new content — can force layout again.

Step 5 — Paint

Paint turns boxes into drawing instructions — backgrounds, borders, text, shadows, images — in stacking order. The page may be split into **layers** (e.g. a fixed header, a video, `will-change: transform`), painted separately, then *rasterised* (converted to pixels), often on the GPU.

Step 6 — Composite

Compositing stacks the layers on screen. `transform` and `opacity` changes can often be handled here alone — no layout or paint — which is why they animate smoothly at 60 fps or more (Chapter 12).

What a change costs

You change	Layout	Paint	Composite	Example
`width`, `height`, `margin`, `top`, font size, content	yes	yes	yes	Expanding an accordion
`color`, `background-color`, `box-shadow`	no	yes	yes	Hover colour
`transform`, `opacity`	no	no	yes	Sliding a drawer

Events you can observe

`DOMContentLoaded` = HTML parsed and deferred scripts run (images may still load); `load` = everything, including images and iframes, loaded. First Contentful Paint (first text/image) and Largest Contentful Paint (biggest visible element) are milestones in DevTools and Lighthouse (Chapter 14).

Common mistakes

- `<script>` without `defer` in `<head>` — nothing renders until it downloads and runs.
- Hiding with `opacity: 0` and forgetting it is still clickable and read aloud.
- Reading a layout value (`offsetHeight`) right after changing styles in a loop — **layout thrashing** (recomputing geometry many times when once would do).

In the interview

30-second answer: "The browser parses HTML into the DOM and CSS into the CSSOM, combines them into a render tree of visible boxes, runs layout for geometry, paints each layer, and composites layers on the GPU. CSS is render-blocking and classic scripts are parser-blocking, so I keep critical CSS small and load scripts with `defer` or as modules. For animation I prefer `transform` and `opacity` because they skip layout and paint."

- *`display:none` vs `visibility:hidden`?* → The first removes the box from the render tree and frees its space; the second keeps the space but draws nothing.
- *`defer` vs `async`?* → Both download in parallel; `defer` runs in document order after parsing, `async` runs on arrival, in any order.
- *What is a reflow?* → Recomputing layout because geometry changed; expensive on large pages.

Self-check

1. Is `<head>` in the render tree? → No.
2. What does the parser do with a `<p>` inside a `<p>`? → Closes the first paragraph.

1.8 Browser DevTools

What it is

Every desktop browser ships **developer tools** showing the DOM, styles, network traffic and performance. Open with **F12**, **Ctrl+Shift+I** (Windows/Linux), **Cmd+Option+I** (macOS), or right-click → *Inspect*.

The panels you will use (Chrome names; Firefox and Safari are similar)

Panel	What it shows	Use it to…
Elements (Firefox: Inspector)	The live DOM (not your source) + applied CSS with overridden declarations struck through, box model diagram, computed values	Find why a style isn't applied, try CSS live, see flex/grid overlays
Console	Errors, warnings, `console.log`; a JS prompt	Spot failing scripts, test expressions (`$0` = selected element)
Sources (Firefox: Debugger)	Loaded files; breakpoints (where execution pauses)	Step through JavaScript
Network	Every request: status, type, size, timing waterfall, headers	Find 404s, slow files, check caching and `Content-Type`
Performance	Timeline of parsing, scripting, style, layout, paint	Find what makes the page slow or janky (stuttering)
Lighthouse	Audits for performance, accessibility, SEO (search engine optimisation), best practices	A quick report card (Chapter 14)
Application (Firefox: Storage)	Cookies, local storage (key–value data in the browser), service workers, cache	Debug state and offline behaviour
Accessibility pane	The accessibility tree, roles, names, contrast	Chapter 3

Also: the **device toolbar** (Ctrl/Cmd+Shift+M) simulates phones and slow networks; "Rendering" offers paint flashing and emulating `prefers-color-scheme: dark` (Chapter 10).

Seeing what the Network panel sees

`code/05_what_the_browser_fetched.mjs` serves the §1.9 site, opens it in headless Chrome via Puppeteer (a Node library that remote-controls Chrome), logs every response (`page.on('response')`) like the Network list, then reads the `<h1>`'s computed colour (proving the CSS applied) and clicks the button (proving the JS runs):

Output:

```
status type       path            content-type
200  document   /index.html     text/html; charset=utf-8
200  stylesheet /css/style.css  text/css
200  script     /js/main.js     text/javascript
404  other      /favicon.ico

After load: { title: 'My First Page', elements: 31, h1Color: 'rgb(29, 78, 216)' }
After clicking "Say hi": Hi! JavaScript ran.
```

The parser discovered two more requests. The `404` for `/favicon.ico` is the browser automatically asking for a tab icon; `<link rel="icon" href="...">` (Chapter 2) controls it.

Common mistakes

- Editing styles in DevTools and forgetting they vanish on reload.
- Reading the Elements panel as your source: it shows the DOM *after* parser fixes and JS changes. "View Page Source" (Ctrl/Cmd+U) shows the original.

- Debugging caching with "Disable cache" still ticked (it applies only while DevTools is open).

Self-check

1. How do you check a file's status code and `Content-Type`? → Network panel → click the request → Headers.

1.9 Your first page and file structure

How it works

1. Create `index.html` in a folder (in a plain-text editor such as VS Code, not a word processor) — servers return `index.html` for a folder URL (`https://site.com/` → `/index.html`).
2. Open it by double-clicking (`file://` URL) or, better, a local server so URLs behave as in production: `npx serve .` (npx runs a Node package without installing it) or `python3 -m http.server 8000`, then `http://localhost:8000/` (`localhost` = your own machine).
3. Edit, save, reload; inspect with DevTools.

The complete first page (every line explained in Chapter 2):

```
<!-- code/site/index.html -->
<!DOCTYPE html>
<html lang="en">
<head>
  <meta charset="utf-8">
  <meta name="viewport" content="width=device-width, initial-scale=1">
  <title>My First Page</title>
  <link rel="stylesheet" href="css/style.css">
</head>
<body>
  <header>
    <h1>Hello, web!</h1>
    <nav><a href="index.html">Home</a> · <a href="about.html">About</a></nav>
  </header>
  <main>
    <p>This site is four plain text files: <code>index.html</code>, <code>about.html</code>,
<code>css/style.css</code> and <code>js/main.js</code>.</p>
    <p>The browser read the HTML, fetched the stylesheet it links to, and drew the result.</p>
    <ul>
      <li>HTML says <strong>what</strong> things are.</li>
      <li>CSS says how they <strong>look</strong>.</li>
      <li>JavaScript says how they <strong>behave</strong>.</li>
    </ul>
    <button type="button" id="hi">Say hi</button>
    <output id="msg"></output>
  </main>
  <footer><small>Made with a text editor.</small></footer>
  <script src="js/main.js"></script>
</body>
</html>
```

```
/* code/site/css/style.css (excerpt) */
body   { font-family: system-ui, sans-serif; max-width: 40rem; margin: 2rem auto; padding: 0 1rem; line-height:
1.5; color: #1f2933; }
header { border-bottom: 2px solid #3b82f6; margin-bottom: 1rem; }
h1     { color: #1d4ed8; margin: 0 0 .25rem; }
button { font: inherit; padding: .4rem .9rem; border-radius: 6px; border: 1px solid #1e3a8a; background: #1d4ed8;
color: white; }
```

```
// code/site/js/main.js
document.getElementById('hi').addEventListener('click', () => {
  document.getElementById('msg').textContent = 'Hi! JavaScript ran.';
});
```



Figure 1.2 — `code/site/index.html` in Chrome.

The script sits at the end of `<body>` so the button exists when it runs; `<script src="js/main.js" defer>` in the head is equally good.

A sensible file structure

```
my-site/
├── index.html          home page  →  /
├── about.html          →  /about.html
├── blog/
│   └── index.html      →  /blog/
├── css/
│   └── style.css
├── js/
│   └── main.js
├── img/
│   ├── logo.svg
│   └── hero.avif
└── favicon.ico
```

Rule	Why
Lower-case, hyphenated names (`contact-us.html`)	URLs are case-sensitive on most servers; spaces become `%20` ; hyphens are what search engines expect
One folder per asset type (`css/` , `js/` , `img/`) — or per feature in larger projects	Easy to find, easy to set cache rules
`index.html` in every folder that is a "page"	Clean URLs such as `/blog/`
Document-relative links between pages	Works from any folder or domain
Keep source and generated files apart once you add build tools (programs that transform and bundle files for production): `src/` → `dist/`	Never hand-edit generated output

Real-world examples

Static sites (ready-made files, no server code per request) are **deployed** by uploading the folder to GitHub Pages, Netlify, Cloudflare Pages or an S3 bucket behind a CDN. Frameworks (React, Next.js,

Astro) generate the same HTML, CSS and JS files; the browser receives exactly what this chapter describes.

Common mistakes

- Saving as `index.html.txt` (hidden extensions on Windows/macOS).
- Linking `href="CSS/Style.css"` when the file is `css/style.css` — works on a case-insensitive laptop, breaks on a Linux server.
- Missing `<!DOCTYPE html>` or `<meta charset="utf-8">`: quirks mode and garbled accents.

Self-check

1. Why prefer a local server over double-clicking? → Root-relative URLs, `fetch`, modules and some APIs behave differently or fail on `file://`.
2. Why is the script at the end of `<body>` (or `defer`)? → Parsing isn't blocked and the elements it uses already exist.

1.10 Networking fundamentals

What it is

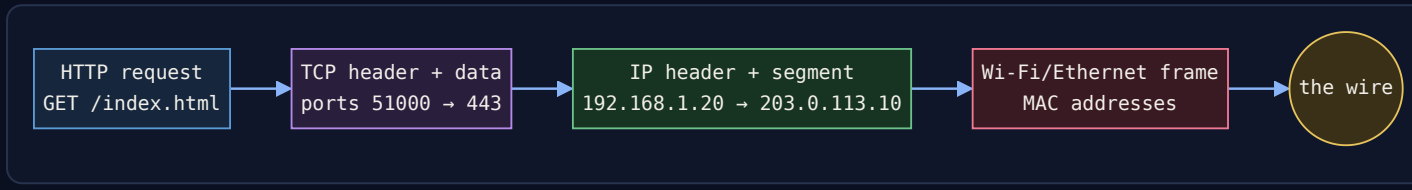
The machinery under §1.3–1.5: **layers**, transports (**TCP**, **UDP**, **QUIC**), addressing (**IPv4, IPv6, NAT**), and boxes in the path (**firewalls, proxies, VPNs**). Interviewers ask about it, and it explains why your laptop is `192.168.1.20` while websites see another address.

How it works — the layer models

Protocols are stacked in **layers**: each uses the one below and serves the one above, wrapping the data in its own **header** (labels and control info in front of the data) — **encapsulation**.

OSI model (7 layers, a teaching model, ISO 7498)	TCP/IP model (4 layers, what the Internet actually runs, RFC 1122)	Examples	Unit of data
7 Application · 6 Presentation · 5 Session	**Application**	HTTP, DNS, TLS*, SSH, SMTP (email sending)	message
4 Transport	**Transport**	TCP, UDP, QUIC	segment / datagram
3 Network	**Internet**	IP (v4, v6), ICMP (`ping`; error and test messages)	packet
2 Data link · 1 Physical	**Link**	Ethernet, Wi-Fi, fibre, radio	frame / bits

*TLS sits between transport and application — "layer 4.5", or OSI layer 6.



A "layer-4" **load balancer** (spreads requests across identical back-ends) looks only at IPs and ports; "layer 7" reads HTTP (URLs, headers, cookies). See Load Balancing and Reverse Proxy.

How it works — ports and sockets

An IP address finds the **machine**; a **port** (0–65535) finds the **program**. A **socket** = IP + port + protocol. Servers listen on **well-known ports**; clients get a random **ephemeral port** (short-lived, one connection) from the OS (`61804` in the demo below).

Port	Service	Port	Service
22	SSH	443	HTTPS (TCP), HTTP/3 (UDP)
25 / 587	SMTP (mail between servers / from clients)	3306 / 5432	MySQL / PostgreSQL
53	DNS (UDP, TCP for large answers)	6379	Redis (in-memory data store)
80	HTTP	8080 / 3000 / 5173	common dev-server choices

How it works — TCP vs UDP vs QUIC

	TCP (RFC 9293)	**UDP** (RFC 768)	**QUIC** (RFC 9000)
Connection set-up	3-way handshake (1 round trip), then TLS	none — just send	1 round trip including TLS 1.3; 0-RTT on resume
Delivery	reliable, ordered, retransmits lost data	best effort: may lose, duplicate or reorder	reliable and ordered **per stream**
Shape of data	one **byte stream**, no message boundaries	separate **datagrams**, boundaries kept	many independent streams in one connection
Flow / congestion control (not overwhelming receiver / network)	yes	no (the app must be polite)	yes
Head-of-line blocking	one lost packet stalls everything behind it	none	only the stream that lost the packet waits
Used by	HTTP/1.1, HTTP/2, SSH, databases, email	DNS, video calls, games, VoIP, DHCP (hands out IP addresses)	HTTP/3

Games and calls use UDP because late voice or game data is useless — skip it rather than stall for a retransmission. QUIC runs **on top of UDP** because routers and firewalls everywhere already pass UDP, while a new transport would be blocked; QUIC re-implements reliability and encryption itself, and its connection IDs let a download survive moving from Wi-Fi to 4G.

How it works — addresses: IPv4, IPv6, NAT

- **IPv4** (RFC 791): 32-bit addresses (~4.3 billion) written `203.0.113.10`. They ran out — the last big regional pools were exhausted between 2011 and 2019.
- **IPv6** (RFC 8200): 128-bit addresses in hex groups, `2001:db8::10` (`::` = a run of zeros) — enough for every device to have a public address. It also drops header checksums and in-network fragmentation (routers splitting oversized packets) and makes auto-configuration standard. Both run side by side (**dual stack**); browsers try IPv6 and IPv4 almost in parallel ("Happy Eyeballs", RFC 8305) and use whichever connects first.
- **CIDR notation** `10.0.0.0/8` = "first 8 bits fixed" — 2^24 addresses. Used for subnets (address blocks belonging to one network) and firewall rules.
- **Private ranges** (RFC 1918): `10.0.0.0/8`, `172.16.0.0/12`, `192.168.0.0/16` — never routed publicly; reusable by any home or office. `127.0.0.1` / `::1` is **loopback** (this machine).
- **NAT** (network address translation) lets a private network share one public IPv4 address: the router rewrites each outgoing packet's source to its public IP and a fresh port, remembers the mapping, and rewrites replies back. Outsiders cannot start a connection inward without a mapping — which is why peer-to-peer video calls need STUN/TURN (helper servers that discover your public address or relay traffic), as used by WebRTC (the browser's real-time media API).
- **Unicast** = one host; **broadcast** = every host on the local network (IPv4 only); **multicast** = a subscribed group; **anycast** = one address announced from many places, routed to the nearest — how public DNS resolvers and CDNs answer from a nearby city.

- **LAN** = one building's network; **WAN** = networks joined across distance.

How it works — DNS records beyond the basics

Beyond §1.3's records: `SOA` (start of authority: zone's primary server and timers), `PTR` (reverse lookup IP → name, used by mail servers to check senders), `SRV` (service → host + port, e.g. SIP telephony or some databases), `CAA` (which certificate authorities may issue certificates for the domain). A `CNAME` cannot sit at the bare domain (`example.com`) alongside other records, so DNS hosts offer non-standard "ALIAS/ANAME" flattening (resolving the alias themselves and publishing the IP).

How it works — firewalls, proxies and VPNs

- A **firewall** filters by rules. A *packet filter* matches addresses, ports, protocols ("allow TCP 443 from anywhere, 22 only from 10.0.0.0/8, deny the rest"). A *stateful* firewall tracks connections, so replies to traffic you started come back automatically; cloud **security groups** are stateful. A **WAF** (web application firewall) works at layer 7, inspecting HTTP for attacks such as SQL injection.
- A **forward proxy** acts for **clients** (a company proxy: filtering, caching, logging). A **reverse proxy** acts for **servers** — nginx, a load balancer or a CDN in front of your app — doing **TLS termination** (decrypting HTTPS so the app needn't), caching and load spreading. To the browser, a reverse proxy *is* "the server".
- A **VPN** (virtual private network) tunnels your packets encrypted into another network so you behave as if plugged in there. **Remote-access VPNs** connect a laptop to the office; **site-to-site VPNs** join two networks (offices, or office and cloud). Protocols: **IPsec**, **WireGuard** (small, modern), TLS-based such as OpenVPN. A VPN hides traffic from the local Wi-Fi, not from the VPN provider.

Seeing it: `code/06_network_basics.mjs`

On loopback only: resolves `localhost`, sends three TCP writes and three UDP datagrams, checks addresses against an allow-list (`net.BlockList`), simulates a NAT table.

```
localhost -> ::1 (IPv6), 127.0.0.1 (IPv4)
isIPv4("203.0.113.10") = true | isIPv6("2001:db8::10") = true
TCP server listening on 127.0.0.1:61803
TCP server sees client 127.0.0.1:61804 (ephemeral port picked by the OS)
TCP bytes received      : "one|two|three|" (in order, as one stream)
UDP datagrams received  : ["one","two","three"] (boundaries kept; on a real network some could be lost or
reordered)
firewall: 192.168.1.20  private=true  -> ALLOW (admin port 22)
firewall: 10.4.5.6      private=true  -> ALLOW (admin port 22)
firewall: 172.20.0.1    private=true  -> ALLOW (admin port 22)
firewall: 203.0.113.10  private=false -> DENY
firewall: 8.8.8.8       private=false -> DENY
NAT out: 192.168.1.10:51000 -> 203.0.113.5:40001
NAT out: 192.168.1.11:51000 -> 203.0.113.5:40002
NAT in : reply to :40001     -> 192.168.1.10:51000
NAT in : packet to :40999    -> DROP (no mapping: unsolicited inbound traffic)
all assertions passed
```

TCP delivered `one|two|three|` as one stream — the `|` separators exist because TCP keeps no message boundaries, so every protocol on top (HTTP included) must frame its messages (`Content-Length`, chunked encoding — body sent in size-prefixed pieces — and frames). UDP delivered three separate messages. Port numbers change every run.

Common mistakes

- "UDP is unreliable, so never use it" → right when late data is worthless (live media, games) or the app adds reliability (QUIC, DNS retries).
- Treating TCP reads as messages → one `send` can arrive split, or several together; always frame.
- Thinking servers see your `192.168.x.x` address → they see the router's public address after NAT.
- Opening a database port (5432, 6379) to `0.0.0.0/0` in a security group → allow only the app servers' subnet.
- Assuming a VPN makes you anonymous → the VPN operator sees what the Wi-Fi provider used to.

In the interview

> **30-second answer — TCP vs UDP:** "TCP is connection-based: a handshake, then a reliable, ordered byte stream with flow and congestion control — used by HTTP/1.1 and /2, databases and SSH. UDP sends independent datagrams with no guarantees and no set-up cost — used by DNS, games and video calls where speed beats completeness. QUIC builds reliable, encrypted, multiplexed streams on top of UDP and powers HTTP/3."

- *OSI vs TCP/IP?* → OSI is a 7-layer teaching model; TCP/IP is the 4-layer model the Internet runs (application, transport, internet, link).
- *Why IPv6?* → IPv4's 32-bit space ran out; NAT stretched it at the cost of end-to-end reachability. IPv6's 128 bits give every device a public address.
- *Forward vs reverse proxy?* → Forward acts for clients (egress filtering — controlling outgoing traffic); reverse acts for servers (TLS termination, load balancing, caching).
- *Why does HTTP/3 use UDP rather than a new protocol?* → Middleboxes (routers, firewalls) already pass UDP; QUIC adds reliability and TLS itself.

Self-check

1. Which layer does a port belong to? → Transport (TCP/UDP).
2. What does a home router's NAT table map? → Public IP:port ↔ private IP:port per outgoing connection.

Sources: RFC 1122 (Internet host layers), RFC 9293 (TCP), RFC 768 (UDP), RFC 9000 (QUIC), RFC 791 / RFC 8200 (IPv4 / IPv6), RFC 1918 (private addresses), RFC 8305 (Happy Eyeballs), RFC 1035 (DNS), Node.js docs for `net` and `dgram`.

Chapter 1 TL;DR

- The **web** runs on the Internet: **URLs** name resources, **HTTP** fetches them, **HTML** describes them; CSS styles, JavaScript adds behaviour.
- **URL** = scheme://host:port/path?query#fragment; **origin** = scheme + host + port; relative URLs resolve against the page URL.
- **DNS** maps names to IPs through resolver → root → TLD → authoritative servers, with TTL-based caching.
- Connections use **TCP + TLS** (HTTPS) or **QUIC** (HTTP/3). HTTPS gives confidentiality, integrity and authentication.
- **HTTP** is stateless request/response: method + path + headers → status + headers + body. Know GET/POST, 2xx/3xx/4xx/5xx, `Content-Type`, `Cache-Control`.
- **Rendering**: HTML → DOM, CSS → CSSOM → render tree → layout → paint → composite. The parser always recovers from bad markup; the doctype keeps you out of quirks mode. `transform` / `opacity` changes are cheapest.
- CSS is render-blocking; classic scripts are parser-blocking; use `defer` or modules.
- A site is a folder of text files; `index.html` is the default page; lower-case, hyphenated names and relative links keep it portable.
- **Networking**: layers (application → transport → IP → link), each adding a header; **TCP** = reliable ordered stream, **UDP** = independent datagrams, **QUIC** = reliable encrypted streams over UDP (HTTP/3); IPv4 (32-bit, stretched by **NAT** and private ranges) vs IPv6 (128-bit); firewalls filter, reverse proxies front servers, VPNs tunnel.

Next: Chapter 2 — HTML Structure and Text.